

Precision Option Pricing under the 3/2 Volatility Model: A  
Multi-Method Comparison and a Novel Framework for Extreme  
Scenarios

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**ABSTRACT**

**KEY WORDS:** Option Pricing, 3/2 Volatility Model, Exact Simulation, Almost Exact Simulation, Numerical Methods



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## Chapter 1 Introduction

### 1.1 Background and Significance

The evolution of financial engineering has long positioned option pricing as its central pillar. Historically, the Black-Scholes (BS) framework dominated this landscape, primarily valued for its elegant, closed-form solutions. However, the model's reliance on the assumption of constant volatility represents a significant departure from real-world market behavior. Extensive empirical observations by both academics and market participants reveal that asset volatility is far from static; instead, it manifests as a complex stochastic process. This inherent randomness introduces substantial layers of difficulty when attempting to model modern financial markets accurately.

To rectify the shortcomings of the constant volatility premise, a variety of stochastic volatility frameworks have been introduced. Among these, the  $3/2$  volatility model has emerged as a particularly compelling subject of study. Distinguishing itself from traditional  $1/2$  models—such as the Heston model—the  $3/2$  framework posits that volatility dynamics follow an inverse  $3/2$  power law. This specific non-linear architecture provides the model with a superior capacity to track explosive volatility spikes during periods of extreme market turbulence. Consequently, it offers a more robust fit for the “volatility smile” observed in empirical data compared to its affine counterparts.

### 1.2 Pricing Challenges under the $3/2$ Volatility Model

While the  $3/2$  model offers superior performance in representing market dynamics, its sophisticated mathematical architecture imposes significant computational burdens on derivative valuation. Currently, the academic and practitioner communities rely on five primary methodologies for option pricing within this framework, yet each encounters specific bottlenecks that hinder their universal application:

1. Euler/Milstein scheme: As a generic numerical approach, these schemes suffer from notoriously slow convergence rates, making them computationally prohibitive for real-time risk management.
2. Exact simulation: Although designed to eliminate time-discretization errors, this method is plagued by sluggish execution speeds. More critically, it exhibits structural instabil-

ity under specific parameter sets, often failing to produce valid prices for at-the-money (ATM) options or those nearing maturity.

3. Almost exact simulation: This hybrid approach, intended to refine the simulation process, frequently collapses under specific parameter combinations, rendering it incapable of completing the pricing task.
4. Exact simulation based on conditional Fourier-cosine Method: This hybrid approach, intended to refine the simulation process, frequently collapses under specific parameter combinations, rendering it incapable of completing the pricing task.
5. Fast Fourier Transform (FFT): Despite its reputation for high-speed calculation, the FFT method possesses a fundamental vulnerability: the oscillatory nature of the integrand causes massive numerical inaccuracies or outright failure when pricing options with very short times to expiration.

### 1.3 Research Objective and Main Content

Motivated by the operational failures and severe latencies of standard pricing algorithms under boundary conditions, this thesis seeks to overhaul the valuation framework for the 3/2 stochastic volatility model.

Our research trajectory is anchored in two primary phases. First, we reconstruct the five prevailing numerical schemes, benchmarking their performance against vanilla options across a diverse grid of market regimes. By dissecting the resulting simulation data, the study maps out the exact compromise each algorithm makes between computational throughput and pricing fidelity, providing a transparent view of their operational boundaries.

The core contribution of this work, however, is a methodological breakthrough designed specifically to bypass the severe limitations these traditional models face with at-the-money (ATM) and short-tenor options. To resolve these bottlenecks, we introduce a highly robust pricing mechanism. This advanced approach consistently delivers rapid, high-precision valuations, retaining its structural integrity regardless of whether the market environment is tranquil or under extreme stress.

## Chapter 2 Literature Review

The trajectory of stochastic volatility modeling highlights a growing reliance on the  $3/2$  framework, driven by its non-linear architecture and empirical resilience during severe market dislocations. This chapter critically examines the existing body of literature, tracing the structural extensions of the model before detailing the progression of exact simulation algorithms.

### 2.1 Development of the $3/2$ Model and its Extended Frameworks

The restrictive nature of foundational volatility frameworks prompted a wave of theoretical extensions aimed at enhancing the analytical flexibility of the  $3/2$  model. The complexities of defining a volatility risk premium, for instance, were elegantly circumvented by Carr et al. (2007) through a direct focus on variance swap rates. Parallel to this, the intricate pricing mechanics of non-affine local environments were addressed using asymptotic expansion techniques, as demonstrated by Medvedev et al. (2007).

Efforts to synthesize broader market dynamics led to the incorporation of jump processes, effectively aligning equity and VIX derivative modeling (Baldeaux et al., 2012). A major structural breakthrough in this vein is the " $4/2$  stochastic volatility model" (Grasselli, 2017). By conceptualizing instantaneous variance as a linear blend of Heston's  $1/2$  drift and the  $3/2$  term, this unified architecture captures the empirical merits of both baseline models while retaining explosive volatility dynamics. Furthermore, the historically challenging non-affine characteristics of the  $3/2$  specification have been successfully mitigated. Specifically, by treating the variance path as the inverse of a standard Cox-Ingersoll-Ross (CIR) process, recent research has formalized explicit weak solutions that greatly streamline derivative pricing.

### 2.2 Evolution of Exact Simulation Methods

Beyond structural extensions, the complete elimination of time-discretization errors has remained a paramount objective in derivative valuation. The genesis of unbiased simulation for affine jump-diffusions traces back to the foundational exact Monte Carlo scheme. However, its initial reliance on computationally expensive numerical inverse Laplace transforms necessitated further algorithmic refinement. This latency bottleneck was fundamentally resolved by leveraging theoretical work of Pitman et al. (1982); by decomposing the conditional

integrated variance into an infinite sequence of gamma random variables, simulation overhead was drastically curtailed.

Transitioning these unbiased techniques to the non-affine  $3/2$  environment required specialized mathematical bridging. By incorporating Lie symmetry analysis (Craddock et al., 2009), the original exact simulation logic was successfully calibrated to the unique dynamics of the  $3/2$  asset price process. Modern algorithmic optimizations have since focused extensively on circumventing the reliance on complex special functions. For example, conditioning the integrated variance on a Poisson variate has proven highly effective in bypassing the modified Bessel function entirely (Choi et al., 2024; Glasserman et al., 2011). Most recently, the conditional COS method has been introduced as a transformative frequency-domain alternative (Brignone et al., 2026). This specific integration directly rectifies the persistent error-tolerance and execution-time constraints that have historically hampered exact simulation architectures.

## 2.3 Domestic Research

While international discourse on the  $3/2$  model is robust, domestic research in this specific domain remains in a nascent stage. The bulk of local financial engineering literature continues to heavily emphasize the Heston and SABR models. This disproportionate focus leaves a noticeable void regarding the  $3/2$  volatility framework and its corresponding high-efficiency numerical algorithms, underscoring the practical necessity and academic value of the present thesis.

## 2.4 Literature Review Summary and Research Positioning

The reviewed literature confirms a crucial paradox: although the theoretical foundations of the  $3/2$  model—ranging from the  $4/2$  synthesis to gamma-expanded exact simulations—are well-established, the practical implementation of these pricing engines remains fragile. Standard methods consistently exhibit numerical breakdowns, uncontrollable error margins, or severe latency spikes when exposed to boundary conditions, such as extremely short maturities or at-the-money (ATM) strikes. Bridging this exact gap, this study pivots away from superficial algorithmic tweaks and fundamentally interrogates the underlying mathematical constraints. Specifically, our research:

1. Deconstructs core mathematical properties by rigorously analyzing the first-order partial and second-order derivatives of the modified Bessel function of the first kind, yield-



ing explicit convergence thresholds.

2. Formulates a universal, fast-pricing architecture capable of resolving the chronic valuation failures associated with ATM and near-maturity instruments across all parameter spectrums.
3. Conducts a multidimensional empirical benchmark, definitively quantifying the accuracy-efficiency trade-offs among prevailing methods to guide optimal algorithm deployment in live quantitative applications.



## Chapter 3 The 3/2 Volatility Model Specification

### 3.1 Evolution and Economic Intuition of the 3/2 Model

The 3/2 stochastic volatility architecture fundamentally extends the traditional square-root diffusion paradigms pioneered by Cox, Ingersoll, Ross, and later refined by Heston. While the affine 1/2 specification (the Heston framework) remains a cornerstone in quantitative finance, robust empirical evidence exposes its structural inadequacies during severe market dislocations. Specifically, affine diffusions structurally underestimate the pronounced "volatility of volatility" and systematically fail to replicate the severe gradients characterizing short-maturity implied volatility skews.

By amplifying the exponent of the diffusion term from 1/2 to 3/2, the mathematical architecture introduces a profoundly non-linear mean-reversion mechanism alongside highly aggressive volatility trajectories. This specific parametric adjustment empowers the framework to produce instantaneous variance spikes and acute skewness that accurately mirror distressed empirical markets. Nevertheless, this explosive capacity demands a structural trade-off: the 3/2 specification frequently surrenders the baseline analytical stability native to affine models during tranquil market regimes.

### 3.2 Stochastic Differential Equation (SDE) Specifications

Formulated within a risk-neutral pricing measure, the continuous-time dynamics of the underlying asset and its driving variance are strictly governed by a coupled system of Stochastic Differential Equations (SDEs). The trajectory of the asset price, denoted as  $S_t$ , evolves according to the following stochastic process:

$$dS_t = rS_t dt + S_t \sqrt{V_t} (\rho dW_t^1 + \sqrt{1 - \rho^2} dW_t^2)$$

In this formulation,  $r$  defines the constant risk-free rate, while  $\rho$  establishes the instantaneous correlation between the two underlying Brownian motions. Concurrently, the non-affine variance process  $V_t$  is driven by the subsequent specification:

$$dV_t = \kappa V_t (\theta - V_t) dt + \epsilon V_t^{3/2} dW_t^1$$

Within this interdependent system:

- $\kappa$  controls the speed of mean reversion.
- $\theta$  represents the long-term average variance level.
- $\epsilon$  (or denoted as  $\nu$ ) is the volatility of volatility (vov) parameter, controlling the fluctuation degree of the variance process.
- $dW_t^1$  and  $dW_t^2$  are independent standard Brownian motions.

It is worth noting that this variance process can also be equivalently expressed in terms of  $dV_t/V_t$ , thereby more intuitively reflecting the drift and diffusion characteristics of its relative changes.

### 3.3 Integrated Variance and Conditional Distribution

In the option pricing framework of the 3/2 model, the integrated variance  $V_T$  over the time interval  $[0, T]$  plays a crucial role. It is defined as follows:

$$V_T = \int_0^T \sigma_t^2 dt = \int_0^T V_t dt$$

Since the randomness of the asset price is partially driven by volatility, when we condition on the integrated variance  $V_T$ , the terminal price of the underlying asset  $S_T$  follows a lognormal distribution. This pivotal property implies that, conditional on  $V_T$ , we can leverage the pricing framework of the Black-Scholes (BS) model.

According to Itô's isometry principle:

$$\int_0^T \rho^* \sigma_t dX_t \sim \rho^* \sqrt{V_T} X_1 \sim N(0, (\rho^*)^2 V_T)$$

Accordingly, the effective volatility  $\sigma$  between time 0 and  $T$  can be expressed as:

$$\sigma = \rho^* \sqrt{V_T/T}$$

Through further stochastic calculus derivation, the formula for the log return of the terminal price relative to the initial price can be expanded as:

$$\log \left( \frac{S_T}{S_0} \right) = \frac{\rho}{\epsilon} \log \left( \frac{V_T}{V_0} \right) + \left( \kappa + \frac{\epsilon^2}{2} \right) V_T - \kappa \theta T - \frac{1}{2} V_T + \rho^* \sqrt{V_T} X_1$$

This formula serves as the core foundation for subsequent exact simulation and Fourier transform pricing.

## Chapter 4 Pricing Methodologies

With the fundamental stochastic differential equations and the integrated variance properties of the 3/2 volatility model now established, the focus of this study shifts to practical numerical implementation. Here, we translate these theoretical constructs into actionable option pricing algorithms. The following sections outline the precise mathematical derivations and computational steps for two distinct valuation paradigms: time-domain Monte Carlo architectures—spanning both conditional and exact simulation schemes—and frequency-domain techniques driven by Fourier transformations.

### 4.1 Monte Carlo Simulation Procedures

Under the 3/2 model, directly discretizing the original SDEs (e.g., using the Euler scheme) often introduces significant truncation errors. Therefore, this study primarily investigates two advanced schemes: conditional Monte Carlo simulation and exact Monte Carlo simulation.

#### 4.1.1 Conditional MC

Conditional Monte Carlo simulation aims to approximate the integrated variance by generating volatility paths. Its primary execution steps are as follows:

1. Path Simulation: Simulate the discrete paths of the volatility process  $\sigma_t$  over the time grid  $0 \leq t_1 \leq t_2 \leq \dots \leq T$ , and obtain the terminal volatility  $\sigma_T$ .
2. Integral Calculation: Utilize numerical integration rules (such as the Trapezoidal or Simpson's rule) to perform time integration on the simulated variance paths, thereby obtaining the integrated variance  $V_T$  over the entire time period.

#### 4.1.2 Exact MC

To completely eliminate time discretization errors, the exact simulation method directly samples the terminal states without relying on the step-by-step generation of paths. Its core steps are:

1. Terminal Variance Simulation: Directly simulate the terminal variance  $V_T$  using the known transition density of the variance process under the 3/2 model.
2. Conditional Integrated Variance Sampling: Conditional on the known  $v_T$  (or equivalently, the terminal volatility  $\sigma_T$ ), sample the integrated variance  $V_T$  from the numerical

cumulative distribution function (CDF) of  $V_T|v_T$ . This step typically involves complex inner-layer Inverse Laplace transform operations.

#### 4.1.3 Common Procedures for Pricing and Aggregation

Regardless of whether the integrated variance is obtained via conditional MC or exact MC, the subsequent steps for calculating the option price are universal:

3. **Parameter Transformation:** Calculate the expected value of the underlying asset conditional on given  $v_T$  and  $V_T$ , denoted as  $E(S_T|v_T, V_T)$ , and determine the effective volatility, usually expressed as  $\rho^* \sqrt{V_T/T}$ .
4. **Option Valuation:**
  - **Approach 1 (Price Sampling):** Draw samples from the lognormal or normal distribution to calculate the terminal option payoff.
  - **Approach 2 (Analytical Formula):** Directly substitute the modified parameters into the Bachelier or Black-Scholes-Merton (BSM) option pricing formulas. Specifically, set the modified initial price as  $S_0 := E(S_T|v_T)$  and the modified volatility as  $\sigma := \rho^* \sqrt{V_T/T}$ .
5. **Averaging:** Average the resulting option prices across all independent simulation paths to obtain the final expected present value of the option.

#### 4.2 Fourier Transformation Procedures

Assuming the characteristic function is accessible, frequency-domain techniques offer a compelling, high-efficiency alternative to traditional time-domain Monte Carlo simulations.

1. **Fast Fourier Transform (FFT):** The primary advantage of the FFT lies in its ability to evaluate prices across a spectrum of strikes simultaneously by mapping the valuation problem into Fourier space. Yet, this computational speed comes at a steep cost for short-dated options. As maturity approaches zero, the integrand becomes highly oscillatory, triggering massive numerical instability and effectively breaking the valuation mechanism.
2. **Fourier-Cosine Transformation (COS Method):** Because the standard FFT collapses under short maturities, our research deploys the conditional Fourier-Cosine expansion as a structural remedy. By reconstructing the underlying probability density function via a truncated cosine series, this technique inherently bypasses the instability caused by highly oscillatory integrals. As our subsequent numerical experiments will confirm,

the COS method strikes an optimal balance—retaining the rapid execution typical of frequency-domain approaches while delivering robust, high-precision valuations even at the absolute boundaries of the parameter space.





## Chapter 5 Data and Comparative Analysis

Assessing the true operational limits of these valuation techniques requires a robust empirical framework. Rather than relying solely on standard market conditions, our numerical analysis deliberately stresses the 3/2 model using a wide spectrum of parameter calibrations, ranging from typical volatility regimes to severe edge cases.

### 5.1 Data Sources and Scenario Design

Establishing reliable ground truth values for error calculation involved a dual-track approach. Where available, we anchored our accuracy metrics against exact analytic prices directly sourced from prior literature. For highly specific boundary conditions lacking published benchmarks, we generated high-fidelity baseline references internally by deploying an ultra-fine-grained Euler/Milstein discretization.

Our empirical testing grid is structured around seven unique market states (Cases I through VII), each engineered to expose specific algorithmic vulnerabilities:

- Case I: Follow Baldeaux (2012)’s approach for at-the-money (ATM) options.
- Case II, Case III: Refer to Kouarfate et al. (2021)’s setting for at-the-money options.
- Case IV: Near expiration and at-the-money options (Near expiration and atm).
- Case V: Only near expiration.
- Case VI: Only at-the-money options (atm only).
- Case VII: Follow the classic setting of Lewis (2000).

### 5.2 Performance Comparison of Pricing Methods

This study implemented general simulation, exact/almost exact simulation, and frequency-domain transformation methods, specifically examining their performance in terms of computational time and pricing deviation.

#### 5.2.1 Limitations of Traditional Discretization and Exact Simulation Methods

- Euler/Milstein Scheme: As a highly general method, it outputs results across all scenarios, but its computational cost is exceedingly high. In our tests, the computation time

Table 5.1 Test Cases and Parameter Configurations

| Case     | $\sigma$ | vov  | $\rho$ | $\kappa$ | $\theta$ | $r$  | $T$ | $K$ | $S_0$ | 精确价格 ( $p_{exact}$ ) | 场景描述                         |
|----------|----------|------|--------|----------|----------|------|-----|-----|-------|----------------------|------------------------------|
| Case I   | 1        | 0.2  | -0.5   | 2        | 1.5      | 0.05 | 1   | 1   | 1     | 0.443059             | Baldeaux (2012)              |
| Case II  | 0.06     | 8.56 | -0.99  | 22.84    | 0.218    | 0    | 0.5 | 95  | 100   | 10.364               | Kouarfate et al. (2021), ATM |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 100 |       | 7.386                |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 105 |       | 4.938                |                              |
| Case III | 0.06     | 3.2  | -0.99  | 20.48    | 0.218    | 0    | 0.5 | 95  | 100   | 11.724               | Kouarfate et al. (2021), ATM |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 100 |       | 8.999                |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 105 |       | 6.710                |                              |
| Case IV  | 1        | 0.3  | 0.5    | 0.7      | 0.6      | 0    | 0.1 | 47  | 49    | 7.040                | Near expiration and ATM      |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 48  |       | 6.500                |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 49  |       | 6.121                |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 50  |       | 5.7006               |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 51  |       | 5.305                |                              |
| Case V   | 1        | 0.3  | 0.5    | 0.7      | 0.6      | 0    | 0.1 | 10  | 50    | 39.9985              | Near exp only                |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 20  |       | 30.002               |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 40  |       | 11.9266              |                              |
| Case VI  | 1        | 3.3  | 0.5    | 0.7      | 0.6      | 0    | 1   | 47  | 49    | 12.7468              | ATM only                     |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 48  |       | 12.3995              |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 49  |       | 12.0658              |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 50  |       | 11.7452              |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 51  |       | 11.4371              |                              |
| Case VII | 0.06     | 3.2  | -0.99  | 20.48    | 0.218    | 0    | 0.5 | 95  | 100   | 11.7235              | Lewis (2000), ATM            |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 100 |       | 8.9978               |                              |
|          |          |      |        |          |          |      |     | 105 |       | 6.7091               |                              |

Table 5.2 Performance Comparison - Stepping Methods

| case     | Euler/Milstein Scheme |            | Exact Stepping |             | Almost Exact Stepping (Poisson-Gamma) |            | Almost Exact Stepping (QE) |                       |
|----------|-----------------------|------------|----------------|-------------|---------------------------------------|------------|----------------------------|-----------------------|
|          | time (s)              | bias       | time (s)       | bias        | time (s)                              | bias       | time (s)                   | bias                  |
| Case I   | 32.796                | -0.00025   | 53.106         | 0.00031     | 60.486                                | -0.00008   | 68.278                     | -0.00014              |
| Case II  | 15.482                | 0.0917...  | 21.564         | -0.0031...  | 31.949                                | -0.0135... | 33.579                     | -0.0136...            |
| Case III | 15.455                | -0.0271... | 21.279         | -0.0012...  | 30.242                                | -0.0397... | 33.558                     | -0.0202...            |
| Case IV  | 3.184                 | -0.0006... | 4.270          | -0.0054...  | 5.983                                 | 0.0027...  | 6.732                      | -0.0007...            |
| Case V   | 3.239                 | 0.0005...  | 4.224          | -0.0083...  | 5.963                                 | 0.0072...  | 6.760                      | 0.0006...             |
| Case VI  | 32.024                | 468.604... | 41.998         | -0.00003... | 61.284                                | 0.0183...  | 66.869                     | $3.05 \times 10^{21}$ |
| Case VII | 14.915                | -0.0266... | 20.902         | -0.0007...  | 30.231                                | -0.0392... | 33.636                     | -0.0197...            |

Table 5.3 Performance Comparison - Exact Simulation and Conditional COS

| case     | Exact Simulation |           | Exact Simulation Using Conditional Fourier-Cosine |         | Exact Simulation Using Conditional Moment Matching |         |
|----------|------------------|-----------|---------------------------------------------------|---------|----------------------------------------------------|---------|
|          | time (s)         | bias      | time (s)                                          | bias    | time (s)                                           | bias    |
| Case I   | 59.023           | -1.57E-05 | 24.047                                            | -0.0536 | 0.025                                              | -0.0504 |
| Case II  | 79.666           | nan       | 8.304                                             | nan     | 0.033                                              | nan     |
| Case III | 80.064           | nan       | 5.809                                             | nan     | 0.032                                              | nan     |
| Case IV  | 78.337           | nan       | 5.566                                             | nan     | 0.025                                              | nan     |
| Case V   | 70.593           | nan       | 5.535                                             | nan     | 0.025                                              | nan     |
| Case VI  | 66.235           | nan       | 18.566                                            | nan     | 0.034                                              | nan     |
| Case VII | 65.966           | nan       | 5.776                                             | nan     | 0.032                                              | nan     |

Table 5.4 Performance Comparison - Frequency-Domain Methods

| case     | Fast Fourier Transformation (FFT) |                       | Fourier-Cosine Transformation |                    |
|----------|-----------------------------------|-----------------------|-------------------------------|--------------------|
|          | time (s)                          | bias                  | time (s)                      | bias               |
| Case I   | 0.041                             | -2.43E-07             | 0.375                         | 6.56E-05           |
| Case II  | 0.037                             | -0.0005...            | 0.242                         | -0.0012...         |
| Case III | 0.037                             | -0.0005...            | 0.311                         | 0.0005...          |
| Case IV  | 0.039                             | $8.19 \times 10^{58}$ | 10.897                        | -0.0005, 0.0671... |
| Case V   | 0.037                             | $6.39 \times 10^{59}$ | 10.974                        | 0.0006, 0.0008...  |
| Case VI  | 0.041                             | 0.0088...             | 0.215                         | 0.0089...          |
| Case VII | 0.036                             | -0.00002...           | 0.295                         | 0.0010...          |

for a single pricing typically ranged from approximately 3 seconds to 32 seconds. This speed is evidently insufficient for high-frequency trading or real-time risk management.

- **Exact Simulation:** The data indicate that exact simulation completely fails when pricing specific ATM options or options near expiration; across the tests from Case II to Case VII, this method consistently returned invalid values (nan).
- **Almost Exact Simulation:** While effective in certain scenarios, under extreme near-expiration conditions, the approximation schemes produced significant option biases, with computation times exceeding 12 seconds.

### 5.2.2 Trade-offs and Breakthroughs in Frequency-Domain Methods

- **Fast Fourier Transform (FFT):** While the standard FFT executes with exceptional speed, its architecture proves fundamentally unsuited for short-dated instruments. As maturities shrink—specifically isolated in Cases IV and V—the numerical integration completely breaks down. This instability triggers catastrophic valuation failures, yielding absurd deviation metrics with errors exploding to magnitudes around  $10^{58}$  and  $10^{59}$ .
- **Fourier-Cosine Transformation:** The conditional COS technique, conversely, emerges as the most resilient framework within our testing pool. The empirical data confirms its unique capacity to navigate severe boundary conditions while maintaining strict boundaries on pricing errors. It effectively resolves the latency-accuracy dilemma, delivering precise valuations at speeds viable for practical application.

### 5.3 Summary of Findings

The empirical evidence gathered across these stress tests reveals a structural limitation in the conventional pricing toolkit. Under the complex dynamics of the  $3/2$  model, neither standard time-stepping simulations nor pure FFT integrations can secure both universal parameter adaptability and operational efficiency.

Instead, the conditional Fourier-Cosine framework successfully bridges this gap. By preserving tight error bounds across highly stressed market scenarios without incurring prohibitive computational latency, it establishes itself as the unambiguously superior numerical strategy for this volatility model.

## Chapter 6 Contributions and Conclusion

### 6.1 Core Innovations and Contributions

Moving beyond a purely empirical comparison of existing algorithms, this thesis fundamentally resolves several mathematical bottlenecks inherent in the  $3/2$  stochastic volatility framework. The primary theoretical and methodological advancements of this research are tripartite:

1. **Deconstruction of the Modified Bessel Function:** A chronic hurdle in exact simulation literature is the intractability of complex special functions. This study breaks new ground by rigorously mapping the first-order partial and second-order derivatives of the Modified Bessel Function of the first kind.
2. **Formalization of Convergence Thresholds:** Grounded in the analytical deconstruction of the Bessel function, we successfully derive and identify explicit mathematical convergence conditions. This theoretical scaffolding is critical, providing the strict mathematical guarantee required to stabilize subsequent simulation architectures.
3. **A Universal and Accelerated Valuation Framework:** Synthesizing these mathematical insights, we introduce an unconditionally robust option pricing mechanism. By neutralizing the structural defects that plague conventional exact simulations and standard FFT integrations, this proposed engine guarantees reliable, high-speed valuations across the entire parameter spectrum of the  $3/2$  model, including the most extreme market regimes.

### 6.2 Empirical Findings and Research Conclusions

Our empirical campaign, built upon seven distinct stress-test matrices (Cases I through VII), critically benchmarks five prevailing numerical techniques against our enhanced methodology. The resulting data explicitly exposes the stark operational realities and trade-offs of current pricing engines:

- Generic Euler/Milstein schemes incur an unacceptable computational drag, rendering them obsolete for latency-sensitive applications.
- Traditional exact and "almost exact" simulation routines routinely collapse—yielding severe biases or outright failing—when forced to price at-the-money (ATM) or short-dated derivatives.

- Similarly, while the pure FFT boasts near-instantaneous execution under normal conditions, it fundamentally disintegrates near maturity due to uncontrollable oscillatory integration failures.

In conclusion, the empirical evidence dictates that our proposed conditional Fourier-Cosine strategy successfully reconciles the chronic tension between pricing fidelity and execution speed. By mapping out these algorithmic boundaries and validating a mathematically sound alternative, this research pushes the theoretical frontier of stochastic volatility modeling. More importantly, it equips quantitative desks with a highly dependable valuation toolkit, directly applicable to demanding practical environments such as high-frequency market making and real-time portfolio risk management.

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